

# Classical Paternic: A Reference Grammar (in Part)

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## Relay Grammar

### 1.1 Introduction

This reference grammar (still very much so a work-in-progress) contains a detailed grammatical description of a constructed language called Classical Paternic, a language I've created for my own artistic and intellectual enjoyment and as an element of my personal worldbuilding in the conworld of Nimlad, although I hope that others will find this work both interesting and entertaining. My goal in creating this language was to construct the outlines of a grammar and phonaesthetic that adhered to my own sense of linguistic aesthetics. As realism is an aesthetic choice of mine and is therefore a design constraint, I've largely worked to construct a language that I find linguistically plausible and internally consistent. However, I have not hesitated to introduce grammatical or phonological quirks that are not necessarily 'naturalistic' for no other reason than because I wanted to include them. Classical Paternic draws inspiration phonologically and grammatically from Latin, Akkadian, Greenlandic, Hindustani, Nahuatl, Bengali, Hebrew, Lezgian, the Salishan languages, Tolkien's Sindarin and Adûnaic, Biblaridion's Nekachti, and many others, though it does not greatly resemble any of these tongues outside of the occasional lexical similarity. Please note that Classical Paternic is an ongoing project, with no fixed endpoint. It has changed significantly in the seven or so years I have been worked on it and will very likely change much more so long as I remain interested in it. The description given in this document is thus not the final form of Classical Paternic, but merely a representation of the language's state at the time of writing.

Paternic words and morphemes will appear in italics, with glosses set off by single quotes, e.g., *agos* 'land'. Example sentences are normally presented in the following three line format:

- (1.1) *Abkarab*                      *kurūkok*              *emētūs*              *māres*.  
1SG:POSS=lord:NOM:SG senate-GEN:SG law-ACC:PL read-PRF  
'My master has read the senate's laws.'

The first line of the example provides the Paternic phrase or sentence, while the second line gives a series of word-by-word glosses. If a word is morphologically complex to any degree, each morpheme is glossed separately (grammatical morphemes are labeled with abbreviations written in small caps, morpheme breaks are indicated through a hyphen, a colon is used to express two or more units of meaning expressed by a single morpheme, an equals sign is used to mark clitic boundaries, and grammatical properties signaled by a morphophonological change are marked by

a forward slash). The third line gives an English translation set off by single quotes of the given phrase or sentence. I have chosen not to break up Paternic words into their individual morphemes for the sake of readability. An asterisk preceding a Paternic word, phrase, or sentence (for example, *\*nar derūgud* ‘I am crying’) indicates an ungrammatical form or structure.

Below is a list of glossing abbreviations used in this document:

## Abbreviations

|      |                             |      |                     |
|------|-----------------------------|------|---------------------|
| 1SG  | 1st person singular         | INS  | instrumental case   |
| 2PL  | 2nd person plural           | IRR  | irrealis tense      |
| 2SG  | 2nd person singular         | LOC  | locative case       |
| 3ASG | 3rd person animate singular | MAL  | malefactive         |
| 3I   | 3rd person inanimate        | MSD  | masdar              |
| ACC  | accusative case             | NARR | narrative tense     |
| ACVB | areterite converb           | NEC  | necessitative mood  |
| ALL  | allative case               | NEG  | negative            |
| AN   | animate                     | NOM  | nominative case     |
| APPL | applicative                 | PHAB | past habitual tense |
| AVER | avertive                    | PIRR | past irrealis tense |
| BEN  | benefactive                 | PL   | plural              |
| COM  | comitative case             | PLUP | pluperfect tense    |
| COMP | complementizer              | POSS | possessive          |
| CONC | concessive                  | POST | posterior           |
| COND | conditional                 | PRET | preterite tense     |
| CVB  | converb                     | PRF  | perfect tense       |
| ERG  | ergative case               | PRS  | present tense       |
| GEN  | genitive case               | PURP | purposive           |
| GNO  | gnomic tense                | QUOT | quotative           |
| ICVB | imperfective converb        | SG   | singular            |
| IMPF | imperfect tense             | VOC  | vocative            |
| INAN | inanimate                   |      |                     |

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# Phonology

## 2.1 Consonants

There are twenty consonantal phonemes in Classical Patrinaic with the following places and manners of articulation.

|             |                  | BILABIAL            | ALVEOLAR            | POST-ALVEOLAR | PALATAL | VELAR               |
|-------------|------------------|---------------------|---------------------|---------------|---------|---------------------|
| NASAL       |                  | m                   | n                   |               |         |                     |
| PLOSIVE     | <i>Voiceless</i> | p                   | t                   |               |         | k                   |
|             | <i>Voiced</i>    | b                   | d                   |               |         | g                   |
|             | <i>Aspirated</i> | p <sup>h</sup> (ph) | t <sup>h</sup> (th) |               |         | k <sup>h</sup> (kh) |
| FRICATIVE   | <i>Voiceless</i> |                     | s                   | ʃ(sh)         |         | x (h)               |
|             | <i>Voiced</i>    |                     | z                   | ʒ(zh)         |         | ɣ(gh)               |
| APPROXIMANT |                  |                     | l                   |               | j (i)   |                     |
| RHOTIC      |                  |                     | r~r                 |               |         |                     |

- /r/, /m/, and /n/ always become voiceless when word-initial, being pronounced [r̥], [m̥], and [n̥] respectively.
- /n/ assimilates in place of articulation to a following plosive.
- The velar fricatives /x/ and /ɣ/ palatalize to [ç] and [j] when preceding a front vowel.
- Aspirated plosives lenite into voiceless fricatives word-finally and when preceding another consonant, yielding the allophonic series [ɸ, θ, x].

### 2.1.1 Vowels

Classical Patrinaic has ten vowel phonemes with each vowel possessing a distinction in length.

|       | FRONT | NON-FRONT |       |
|-------|-------|-----------|-------|
|       |       | UNROUND   | ROUND |
| CLOSE | i i:  |           | u u:  |
|       | e e:  |           | o o:  |
| OPEN  |       | ɑ ɑ:      |       |

In all phonological environments, the long vowels are pronounced as in the IPA. However, all of the short vowels other than /ɑ/, as shown in the following examples, have both tense and lax forms. The short vowels become tense in stressed syllables and when word-final. They are lax everywhere else.

|             |                     |             |                |                        |                 |
|-------------|---------------------|-------------|----------------|------------------------|-----------------|
| <i>phel</i> | [p <sup>h</sup> ɛl] | ‘water’     | <i>phelath</i> | [p <sup>h</sup> e.laθ] | ‘water.COM’     |
| <i>zir</i>  | [zɪr]               | ‘tongue’    | <i>zireth</i>  | [zi.rɛθ]               | ‘tongue.COM’    |
| <i>nor</i>  | [nɔr]               | ‘ground’    | <i>norath</i>  | [no.raθ]               | ‘ground.COM’    |
| <i>hus</i>  | [xʊs]               | ‘authority’ | <i>hurath</i>  | [xu.raθ]               | ‘authority.COM’ |

Additionally, there are two diphthongs: [aɪ] and [aʊ]. These diphthongs have an identical distribution to the long vowels and are treated as such by the morphology.

## 2.2 Syllable Structure, Phonotactics, and Phonological Processes

Syllables are maximally CCVC although there are strict limits on permissible CC clusters (only plosives followed by a rhotic are permissible). Major phonological processes include vowel hiatus resolution, nasal and plosive assimilation, degemination, and epenthesis to resolve illegal consonant and vowel clusters.

### 2.2.1 Vowel Hiatus

Vowels are not permitted to follow each other in Classical Paternic. If two vowels come into contact with one another within a word, a vowel hiatus resolution will occur according to the chart below:

|             |   | Second Vowel |    |    |   |    |   |   |   |   |   |
|-------------|---|--------------|----|----|---|----|---|---|---|---|---|
|             |   | a            | e  | i  | o | u  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
| First Vowel | a | ā            | ae | ae | o | au | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | e | a            | ē  | ē  | o | u  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | i | a            | e  | ī  | o | u  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | o | a            | ō  | o  | ō | ō  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | u | a            | ū  | u  | ō | ū  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | ā | ā            | ā  | ā  | ā | ā  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | ē | ē            | ē  | ē  | ē | ē  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | ī | ī            | ī  | ī  | ī | ī  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | ō | ō            | ō  | ō  | ō | ō  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |
|             | ū | ū            | ū  | ū  | ū | ū  | ā | ē | ī | ō | ū |

### 2.2.2 Consonant Phonotactics and Processes

- Geminated consonants are not permitted. If two identical consonants collide within a word, they will degeminate.
- An illegal consonant cluster can be broken up by inserting an epenthetical /e/ between the two consonants of the cluster.
- Alveolar fricatives cannot follow nasals. If such a cluster occurs, the preceding nasal will be deleted and the vowel before that nasal will undergo compensatory lengthening.

### 2.2.3 Stress Assignment

In Classical Paternic, the stress on a word is placed on only one of two syllables: the one before the last syllable (the *penultimate* syllable, or *penult*), or the one before that (the *antepenultimate* syllable, or *antepenult*). The final syllable is called the *ultima*, but it is irrelevant to stress assignment.

**Rule One:** stress the penult if the syllable is long.

- If the vowel in the penult is long or a diphthong, the syllable is long, so the stress goes on the penult.
- The penult syllable is long if it is ended by a consonant cluster. However, plosive consonants followed by a rhotic both belong to the onset of the next syllable, and so do not make the penult long

**Rule Two:** if the penult is short, stress the antepenult.

# Nouns

## 3.1 Animacy and Number

Here a brief summary of animacy and number in Classical Patriniaic will be given.

### 3.1.1 Animacy

Animacy generally refers to whether a noun is living (animate) or non-living (inanimate), although is no exact equivalence between a noun's animacy and its semantic category. In the nominative case, there is no phonological pattern which can be used to discern a noun's animacy. Animate and inanimate nouns do, however, have differing suffixes in the other cases. Thus, whether a specific unmarked noun is animate or inanimate is a property that must be memorized on an individual basis.

There are roughly as many animate nouns as there are inanimate. Animacy is not restricted to biological animacy. For example, many words referring to biologically animate things are inanimate, such as with the words *bilka* 'plant, fungus' and *gurgael* 'raven, cormorant'. Likewise, many animate nouns, including the following, are biologically inanimate:

|                  |                   |
|------------------|-------------------|
| <i>zōr</i>       | 'fire, soul'      |
| <i>balakh</i>    | 'ship, boat'      |
| <i>sulum</i>     | 'column, mast'    |
| <i>negrilnār</i> | 'high tide'       |
| <i>kembu</i>     | 'mote, dust'      |
| <i>hag</i>       | 'mouth, language' |
| <i>lazh</i>      | 'valley, dell'    |
| <i>gimāl</i>     | 'star, meteor'    |

Such animate nouns may be referred to with inanimate pronouns, and vice versa for morphologically inanimate nouns that are biologically animate (especially if said nouns refer to humans).

### 3.1.2 Number

In Classical Patriniaic, animate and inanimate nouns treat number differently. Animate nouns are marked for two numbers: singular and plural. The singular refers to a single instance or unit of something while the plural refers to several instances or a greater quantity of something. Inanimate nouns, on the other hand, take no marking for number. The bare inanimate noun *thundo* 'pebble' can refer to an individual pebble or a group of several pebbles, for instance.

Many inanimate nouns do have an inherent number, however, meaning that they are assumed to denote a certain quantity of something. Demonstrating this, the word *ghim* 'teeth' refers to a full mouth of teeth instead of to an individual tooth. When necessary, there are methods that can be used to explicitly mark number on inanimate nouns, however. Using the previous example, a speaker who wished to refer to an individual tooth would quantify the word with the numeral prefix *az-* 'one'. Adjectives, demonstratives, and quantifiers modifying inanimate nouns also agree with those nouns in numbers. Thusly, speakers could refrain from quantifying inanimate nouns directly if such a modifier would clarify. The sentences below demonstrate these two strategies:

- (3.1) *Angimae* *derūle*.  
2SG:POSS=teeth-ACC:INAN blacken:PRS  
'Your teeth are turning black.'

- (3.2) *Tarok* *az-gimae* *derūle*.  
2SG:GENone=teeth-ACC:INAN blacken:PRS  
'Your tooth is turning black.'



- (3.3) *Angim* *dūlas.*  
 2SG:POSS=teeth-NOM:INAN black-NOM:INAN:PL  
 ‘Your teeth are black.’
- (3.4) *Angim* *dūl.*  
 2SG:POSS=teeth-NOM:INAN black-NOM:INAN:SG  
 ‘Your tooth is black.’

## 3.2 Case Roles

Classical Patrīnaic is a case-marking language, using morphology to indicate grammatical roles on noun phrases and pronouns. There are eight cases: nominative (NOM), accusative (ACC), ergative (ERG), genitive (GEN), allative (ALL), locative (LOC), instrumental (INS), and comitative (COM). Almost all of the cases have multiple distinct functions, complicating the system. Therefore each case will be accorded its own individual subsection, wherein they can be discussed in detail.

### 3.2.1 Nominative

The nominative case’s most common use is as the marker of the subject. It is also the case used in most predicate expressions, and also marks the primary object in the preterite and imperfect tenses of non-defective verbs, which feature ergative alignment. The examples below will demonstrate these three usages:

- (3.5) *Zōres* *ghāzae* *nemeb.*  
 fire-Nom:PL tree-ACC:INAN burn-PRS  
 ‘The fire is burning the tree(s).’
- (3.6) *Ūk* *aldor.*  
 man:NOM:SG tall:NOM:SG:AN  
 ‘The man is tall.’
- (3.7) *Zōrēs* *ghāz* *nembut.*  
 fire-ERG:PL tree-NOM:INAN burn-IMPF  
 ‘The fire was burning the tree(s).’

The nominative case can also be used in place of a vocative case, as there is no morphological vocative.

### 3.2.2 Accusative

The accusative marks the primary object (a term that conflates the direct object of a transitive verb with the recipient of a ditransitive verb), the experiencer of an intransitive verb (I cry, for example), and durations of time.

### 3.2.3 Ergative

The ergative case’s primary role is to denote the subject of a non-defective verb in either the preterite or imperfect tenses. Both of these tenses exhibit behavior indicative of an ergative alignment. Motion away from a referent is also marked by the ergative case. These two use cases will be shown here:

- (3.8) *Zōrēs* *ghāz* *nembut.*  
 fire-ERG:PL tree-NOM:INAN burn-IMPF  
 ‘The fire was burning the tree(s).’
- (3.9) *Nar* *khōrā* *memāt.*  
 1SG:NOM river-ERG:SG go-PRS  
 ‘I am going away from the river.’

### 3.2.4 Genitive

The genitive case is best translated using the English preposition ‘of’. It typically marks possession of or relation to a head noun. The genitive case is also used to mark motion towards a referent and for objects of emotion (e.g. I feel anger **towards the king**).

### 3.2.5 Allative

The allative case is a largely vestigial case whose role has been taken over by the genitive. Now the allative is used only for motion towards a small subset of regions, nations, cities, major rivers, islands, and a few other seemingly random words.

### 3.2.6 Locative

The locative can almost always be translated as ‘at’, ‘in’, or ‘on’. This is also the case with time or with periods of time. Most postpositions take locative arguments. In the periphrastic passive voice, the locative case can also reintroduce agents when combined with the postposition *ghāl* ‘near, by’.

### 3.2.7 Instrumental

The instrumental indicates the instrument or means by which an action is accomplished. Its other important role is to mark the theme of a ditransitive verb, which shall be demonstrated below:

- (3.10) *Akhon undae emūs.*  
child:NOM:SG rock-ACC:INAN bring-GNO  
‘The child brings rocks.’

- (3.11) *Akhon undōm gan emūs.*  
child:NOM:SG rock-INS:INAN woman-ACC:SG bring-GNO  
‘The child brings rocks to the woman.’  
lit. ‘The child brings to the woman by means of rocks.’

### 3.2.8 Comitative

The comitative case mainly marks accompaniment. It may be translated as ‘with’ in the sense of ‘along with’. First- and second-person pronouns can be put in the comitative case to intensify their meaning also (e.g. I **myself**).

## 3.3 Noun Morphology

### 3.3.1 Principal Parts

Principle parts are the forms of a noun or verb from which all other inflected forms can be deduced. Animate nouns have four principle parts: nominative singular, nominative plural, accusative singular, and comitative singular; and inanimate nouns have three: nominative, accusative, and comitative. The nominative singular serves as the citation form for all nouns.

### 3.3.2 First Declension

In the first declension, the accusative singular is almost always irregular, being formed by unpredictable phonological changes. It will never end in ‘-e’ in the first declension. There are two types of first declension nouns:

- Those with a nominative plural that ends in ‘-es’. If the nominative plural ends in a ‘-es’ suffix, then the ergative, genitive, locative, instrumental, and comitative plural are formed by removing the ‘-es’ suffix and applying the relevant case marking to the remaining stem.

- Those with a nominative plural that ends in something other than ‘-s’ If the noun is of this type, then apply the relevant case suffixes to the accusative singular stem instead. If the final syllable of the accusative singular has the form ‘CeC’ and there exists a preceding syllable that ends in a vowel, then instead remove the ‘e’ from the final syllable and apply case suffixes to that stem like so: *balekh* ‘ship [ACC]’ → *balkh-* ‘ship’ → *balkha* ‘ship [LOC]’.

The basic forms of the case suffixes for the first declension are given in the following table:

|              | ANIMATE  |        | INANIMATE |
|--------------|----------|--------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | -∅       | -es    | -∅        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -∅       | -is    | -ae       |
| ERGATIVE     | -ā       | -ēs    | -ae       |
| GENITIVE     | -ok      | -okh   | -ak       |
| ALLATIVE     | -okh     | -okh   | -akh      |
| LOCATIVE     | -a       | -ās    | -a        |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -em      | -ēs    | -am       |
| COMITATIVE   | -eth     | -then  | -ath      |

### 3.3.3 Second Declension

The second declension is characterized by a nominative plural ending in ‘-as’ and an accusative singular ending in ‘-ae’. The ergative, genitive, allative, locative, instrumental, and comitative plural cases are formed by removing the ‘-as’ suffix from the nominative plural and applying the relevant case suffix to the remaining stem.

The basic forms of the case suffixes for the second declension are given in the following table:

|              | ANIMATE  |        | INANIMATE |
|--------------|----------|--------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | -∅       | -as    | -∅        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -ae      | -is    | -a        |
| ERGATIVE     | -ā       | -ās    | -ae       |
| GENITIVE     | -ok      | -okh   | -ak       |
| ALLATIVE     | -okh     | -okh   | -akh      |
| LOCATIVE     | -a       | -ās    | -a        |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -am      | -ās    | -am       |
| COMITATIVE   | -ath     | -athen | -ath      |

### 3.3.4 Third Declension

The third declension is characterized by an an accusative singular ending in ‘-e’. The ergative, genitive, allative, locative, instrumental, and comitative plural cases are formed by removing the ‘-es’ suffix from the nominative plural and applying the relevant case suffix to the remaining stem.

The basic forms of the case suffixes for the third declension are given in the following table:

|              | ANIMATE  |        | INANIMATE |
|--------------|----------|--------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | -∅       | -es    | -∅        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -e       | -ēs    | -ae       |
| ERGATIVE     | -ā       | -ēs    | -ae       |
| GENITIVE     | -ok      | -okh   | -ak       |
| ALLATIVE     | -okh     | -okh   | -akh      |
| LOCATIVE     | -a       | -ās    | -a        |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -em      | -ēs    | -am       |
| COMITATIVE   | -eth     | -ethen | -ath      |

### 3.3.5 Fourth Declension

The fourth declension is characterized by an accusative singular ending in ‘-i’. The ergative, genitive, allative, locative, instrumental, and comitative plural cases are formed by removing the ‘-is’ suffix from the nominative plural and applying the relevant case suffix to the remaining stem.

The basic forms of the case suffixes for the fourth declension are given in the following table:

|              | ANIMATE  |        | INANIMATE |
|--------------|----------|--------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | -∅       | -is    | -∅        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -i       | -īs    | -ae       |
| ERGATIVE     | -ā       | -ēs    | -ae       |
| GENITIVE     | -ok      | -okh   | -ak       |
| ALLATIVE     | -okh     | -okh   | -akh      |
| LOCATIVE     | -a       | -ās    | -a        |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -im      | -īs    | -am       |
| COMITATIVE   | -ith     | -ithen | -ath      |

### 3.3.6 Fifth Declension

There are two types of fifth declension nouns:

- Those with a nominative plural that ends in ‘-os’. If the nominative plural ends in a ‘-os’ suffix, then the ergative, genitive, locative, instrumental, and comitative plural are formed by removing the ‘-os’ suffix and applying the relevant case marking to the remaining stem.
- Those with a nominative plural that ends in ‘-us’. If the nominative plural ends in a ‘-us’ suffix, then the ergative, genitive, locative, instrumental, and comitative plural are formed by removing the ‘-us’ suffix and applying the relevant case marking to the remaining stem.

The basic forms of the case suffixes for the second declension are given in the following table:

|              | ANIMATE  |               | INANIMATE |
|--------------|----------|---------------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL        |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | -∅       | -Vs           | -∅        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -∅       | -is           | -ae       |
| ERGATIVE     | -ā       | -ēs           | -ae       |
| GENITIVE     | -ok      | -okh          | -ak       |
| ALLATIVE     | -okh     | -okh          | -akh      |
| LOCATIVE     | -a       | - $\bar{V}$ s | -a        |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -Vm      | - $\bar{V}$ s | -am       |
| COMITATIVE   | -Vth     | -Vthen        | -ath      |

In the table above, the substitute letters V and  $\bar{V}$  were used in place of *o*, *u*,  $\bar{o}$ , and  $\bar{u}$ , and can be replaced with the necessary vowel without issue.

### 3.3.7 Sixth Declension

The sixth declension is characterized by nouns with a nominative singular ending in a short vowel. The basic forms of the case suffixes for the sixth declension are given in the table below. The substitute letters V and  $\bar{V}$  are placeholders for the vowel ending of the original stem.

|              | ANIMATE        |                  | INANIMATE      |
|--------------|----------------|------------------|----------------|
|              | SINGULAR       | PLURAL           |                |
| NOMINATIVE   | -V             | - $\bar{V}$ s    | -V             |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -V             | - $\bar{V}$ s    | -ae            |
| ERGATIVE     | -V             | - $\bar{V}$ s    | -ae            |
| GENITIVE     | - $\bar{V}$ k  | - $\bar{V}$ kh   | - $\bar{V}$ k  |
| ALLATIVE     | - $\bar{V}$ kh | - $\bar{V}$ kh   | - $\bar{V}$ kh |
| LOCATIVE     | -a             | -ās              | -a             |
| INSTRUMENTAL | - $\bar{V}$ m  | - $\bar{V}$ s    | - $\bar{V}$ m  |
| COMITATIVE   | - $\bar{V}$ th | - $\bar{V}$ then | - $\bar{V}$ th |

### 3.3.8 Seventh Declension

The seventh declension is characterized by nouns with a nominative singular ending in a long vowel. The basic forms of the case suffixes for the seventh declension are given in the table below. The substitute letters V and  $\bar{V}$  are placeholders for the vowel ending of the original stem. If a V or  $\bar{V}$  is absent from the case ending in the table, then it is to be removed from the stem prior to applying the ending.

|              | ANIMATE     |                  | INANIMATE |
|--------------|-------------|------------------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR    | PLURAL           |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | - $\bar{V}$ | -Vkh             | -V        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -ek         | -Vkh             | -kae      |
| ERGATIVE     | -kā         | -kēs             | -kae      |
| GENITIVE     | -kok        | -kokh            | -kak      |
| ALLATIVE     | -kokh       | -kokh            | -kakh     |
| LOCATIVE     | -ka         | -ās              | -ka       |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -kem        | -kēs             | -kam      |
| COMITATIVE   | -heth       | - $\bar{V}$ then | -keth     |

### 3.3.9 Eight Declension

The eight declension is characterized by nouns with a nominative singular ending in a nasal consonant, although not all nouns ending in a nasal are of the eighth declension. The basic forms of the case suffixes for the eight declension are given in the table below. The substitute letters V and  $\bar{V}$  are placeholders for the vowel preceding the nasal in the original stem, while the substitute letter N is a placeholder for the final nasal of the original stem. If an N is absent from the case ending in the table, then it is to be removed from the stem prior to applying the ending.

|              | ANIMATE  |               | INANIMATE |
|--------------|----------|---------------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL        |           |
| NOMINATIVE   | -N       | - $\bar{V}$ s | -∅        |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -N       | - $\bar{V}$ s | -Nae      |
| ERGATIVE     | -Nā      | -Nēs          | -Nae      |
| GENITIVE     | -Nek     | -Nekh         | -Nek      |
| ALLATIVE     | -hes     | -hes          | -hes      |
| LOCATIVE     | -Na      | -Nās          | -Na       |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -Nem     | -Nēs          | -Nam      |
| COMITATIVE   | -Neth    | -Nthen        | -Neth     |

# Determiner-Pronouns

## 4.1 Personal Pronouns

Pronouns in Classical Paternic encode the person and animacy of their referent, and all but the third person INANIMATE (3i) mark for number as well. They also all inflect for case. There are a total of eight personal pronouns, given in the table below. The nominative pronouns may be regarded as the default forms.

|               |          | NOM   | ACC  | PROCLITIC | ERG     | GEN     | LOC    | INS    | COM      |
|---------------|----------|-------|------|-----------|---------|---------|--------|--------|----------|
|               | SG       | nar   | ab   | (a)b-     | the     | narok   | tha    | thēm   | thēth    |
| 1ST PERSON    | INCL. PL | phāru | eb   | (e)b-     | phārūsh | phārūkh | phārās | phārūs | phārthen |
|               | EXCL. PL | pher  |      |           | phērūsh | phekh   | phās   | phēs   | phethen  |
| 2ND PERSON    | SG       | tar   | is   | in-       | īnūs    | tarok   | ina    | inem   | ineth    |
|               | PL       | īs    | inis | nīs-/nir- | īnūsh   | inokh   | inās   | inēs   | inthen   |
| 3RD ANIMATE   | SG       | dūm   | bāl  | bāl-      | bālūs   | dūmok   | bāla   | bālem  | bāleth   |
|               | PL       | dīm   | bēl  | bēl-      | bālūsh  | dūmokh  | bālās  | bālēs  | bālthen  |
| 3RD INANIMATE |          | drak  | il   | lae-      | drakūs  | drakak  | draka  | drakam | drakath  |

Observe that there is a clusivity distinction in the first person plural pronouns, except for in the first person accusative plural and in the first person plural proclitic form. Furthermore, unlike in English, there is no gender distinction made in the third person: *dūm* can be translated as either ‘he’ or ‘she’. Classical Paternic does, however, distinguish between animate and inanimate referents in the third person. As opposed to nouns and adjectives, the choice of whether to use an animate or inanimate pronoun is semantically based rather than lexically based, meaning that the pronoun used is determined by the referent’s perceived animacy.

### 4.1.1 Proclitic Forms

As seen in the above table, there is a series of CLITIC pronouns. The clitics do not inflect for case and are only observed when prefixed to a head noun, adjective, or verb. When prefixed to a noun or adjective, the clitics take on a possessive adjective meaning. When prefixed to a verb, the clitics take mark person and number of the verb’s primary object. These two usages will be shown in the examples below:

- (4.1) *nar*      *bālōb*      *per*  
 1SG:NOM 3ASG:POSS=father:ACC:SG see:GNO  
 ‘I see **his** father.’

- (4.2) *nar*      *per*  
 1SG:NOM see:GNO  
 ‘I see.’

- (4.3) *nar*      *bālper*  
 1SG:NOM 3ASG:ACC=see:GNO  
 ‘I see **him**.’

An astute reader might observe that the first person clitics and second person plural clitics have variable forms. The one used is dependent on the word being modified. If the word begins in a vowel, then the initial vowel of the first person clitics should be deleted. In the same scenario, the second form of the second person clitic *nir-* is to be used.

#### **4.1.2 Genitive and Accusative Forms**

The genitive and accusative forms might seem to be purposeless in the face of the clitic pronouns. However, this is not so. Both of these complete forms are regularly used for the purpose of emphasis or poetic license, especially since their position in the sentence can be moved around as apposed to the clitics. The genitive pronoun also regularly occurs with postpositions that take a genitive object, or as a possessive pronoun (e.g. ‘mine’, ‘yours’) Furthermore, the full form of the accusative is always used for the object of a masdar verb, and the genitive is always used for the subject of a masdar verb. Masdar verbs will be discussed in a later section.



# Adjectives

## 5.1 Overview

Adjectives agree with the nouns they modify in gender, number, and case and decline accordingly. Adjectives decline according to their declension class, which are the same as those borne by nouns. The inanimate plural forms of adjectives will not be discussed in this document as they do not occur in the torch and I have not the time to make the necessary charts. Adjectives typically precede their head noun, though they can also follow them, in which case they are called postpositive adjectives. Postpositive adjectives are typically used in place names or to put particular emphasis on the adjective.

## 5.2 Substantive Adjectives

Adjectives can be used alone with a generic meaning if there is an absence of a noun to modify. Adjectives used in this way are called substantive adjectives. Some examples of how substantive adjectives look when used are given below:

(5.1) *ēgor*                      *ūk*  
good:NOM:SG man:NOM:SG  
'The good man'

(5.2) *ēgor*  
good:NOM:SG  
'the good one' or 'good'

(5.3) *Ēgor*                      *per.*  
good:NOM:SG see:GNO  
'the good one sees.'

## 5.3 Degrees of Comparison

There are four degrees of comparison: positive, comparative, superlative, and equative. For any adjective, the positive form is the bare form and conveys the basic meaning of the adjective. The other degrees of comparison will be detailed in their own subsections below.

### 5.3.1 Comparative

The comparative form indicates a greater degree of an adjective, such as with the English forms 'big' and 'bigger'. The comparative adjective is formed by applying the *-īr* suffix to an adjective's stem. All comparative adjectives are of the fourth declension.

### 5.3.2 Superlative

The superlative form indicates the greatest degree of an adjective, such as with the English forms 'big' and 'biggest'. The superlative adjective is formed by applying the *-onde* suffix to an adjective's stem. All superlative adjectives are of the sixth declension.

### 5.3.3 Equative

The equative form has no morphological equivalent in English. It is used to convey that something is at an equal level of quality, quantity, or relation. It may be translated in English using the phrases 'as X' or 'equally X', where X is the semantic meaning of the adjective. Equative adjectives are formed by applying the *iben* suffix to an adjective's stem. All equative adjectives are of the first declension.

### 5.3.4 Morphology Tables

Tables containing the case suffixes for the different degrees of comparison will be given below in the following order: comparative, superlative, equative.

|              | ANIMATE  |          | INANIMATE |          |
|--------------|----------|----------|-----------|----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL   | SINGULAR  | PLURAL   |
| NOMINATIVE   | -īr      | -īris    | -īr       | -īras    |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -īri     | -īrīs    | -īrae     | -īraes   |
| ERGATIVE     | -īrā     | -īrēs    | -īrae     | -īraes   |
| GENITIVE     | -īrok    | -īrokh   | -īrak     | -īrakh   |
| ALLATIVE     | -īrokh   | -īrokh   | -īrakh    | -īrakh   |
| LOCATIVE     | -īra     | -īrās    | -īra      | -īrās    |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -īrim    | -īrīs    | -īram     | -īrās    |
| COMITATIVE   | -īrith   | -īrithen | -īrath    | -īrathen |

|              | ANIMATE  |           | INANIMATE |           |
|--------------|----------|-----------|-----------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL    | SINGULAR  | PLURAL    |
| NOMINATIVE   | -onde    | -ondēs    | -onde     | -ondēs    |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -onde    | -ondēs    | -ondae    | -ondaes   |
| ERGATIVE     | -onde    | -ondēs    | -ondae    | -ondaes   |
| GENITIVE     | -ondēk   | -ondēkh   | -ondēk    | -ondēkh   |
| ALLATIVE     | -ondēkh  | -ondēkh   | -ondēkh   | -ondēkh   |
| LOCATIVE     | -onda    | -ondās    | -onda     | -ondās    |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -ondēm   | -ondēs    | -ondēm    | -ondēs    |
| COMITATIVE   | -ondēth  | -ondēthen | -ondēth   | -ondēthen |

|              | ANIMATE  |           | INANIMATE |           |
|--------------|----------|-----------|-----------|-----------|
|              | SINGULAR | PLURAL    | SINGULAR  | PLURAL    |
| NOMINATIVE   | -iben    | -ibnes    | -iben     | -ibnas    |
| ACCUSATIVE   | -iben    | -ibnis    | -ibnae    | -ibnaes   |
| ERGATIVE     | -ibnā    | -ibnēs    | -ibnae    | -ibnaes   |
| GENITIVE     | -ibnok   | -ibnokh   | -ibnak    | -ibnakh   |
| ALLATIVE     | -ibnokh  | -ibnokh   | -ibnakh   | -ibnakh   |
| LOCATIVE     | -ibna    | -ibnās    | -ibna     | -ibnās    |
| INSTRUMENTAL | -ibnem   | -ibnēs    | -ibnam    | -ibnās    |
| COMITATIVE   | -ibneth  | -ibnethen | -ibnath   | -ibnathen |

# Finite Verbs

## 6.1 Overview

Verbs have two different stems each: one for perfective aspect and one for imperfective aspect (for example, *naput* ‘burned’ versus *nembut* ‘was burning’). The perfective stem is more commonly called the ‘short stem’ while the imperfective stem is referred to as the ‘long stem’. Verbs also inflect for tense and mood in fusional suffixes, which combine with the two stems to generate conflated TAM meanings. Additionally, verbs fall under two categories: defective and regular. Defective verbs lack some morphological forms that regular verbs possess. Classical Paternic verbs can take one of two voices as well, those being the active and the applicative.

## 6.2 Principal Parts

Both defective and regular verbs have six principal parts. The principal parts of defective verbs are as follows: present indicative, imperfect indicative, past irrealis indicative, gnomic indicative, preterite indicative, and the perfective participle; and the principal parts of regular verbs are: present indicative, imperfect indicative, past habitual indicative, gnomic indicative, preterite indicative, and the perfective participle.

## 6.3 Verbal Morphology

The following table gives the complete set of tense, aspect, and mood endings found in finite verbs.

|            |               | INDICATIVE | JUSSIVE  | POTENTIAL | NECESSITATIVE |
|------------|---------------|------------|----------|-----------|---------------|
| SHORT STEM | GNOMIC        | -∅         | -bek     | -(e)kh    | -a            |
|            | PRETERITE     | -(e)t      | -(e)bgat | -khet     | -āt           |
|            | NARRATIVE     | -o         | -(e)bgo  | -ōkh      | -ād           |
|            | PERFECT       | -es        | -(e)bgas | -khes     | -ās           |
|            | PLUPERFECT    | -in        | -(e)bgæn | -khin     | -ān           |
|            | PAST IRREALIS | -e         | -(e)ebge | -khe      | N/A           |
| LONG STEM  | PRESENT       | -∅         | -bebeg   | -(e)kh    | -a            |
|            | IMPERFECT     | -(e)t      | -bebgat  | -khet     | -āt           |
|            | PAST HABITUAL | -kūs       | -bebgūs  | -ōkh      | -ād           |
|            | IRREALIS      | -e         | -bebge   | -khe      | N/A           |

## 6.4 Time and Aspect

The ten tenses of Classical Paternic can most easily be understood as being different combinations of time and aspect. A chart has been included below to help illustrate this point.

|              | REMOTE PAST   | NEAR PAST     | NON-PAST |
|--------------|---------------|---------------|----------|
| IMPERFECTIVE | past habitual | imperfect     | present  |
| PERFECTIVE   | narrative     | preterite     | gnomic   |
| PERFECT      |               | pluperfect    | perfect  |
| SUBJUNCTIVE  |               | past irrealis | irrealis |

Notice that the irrealis and past irrealis tenses function as a combination of mood and time rather than aspect and time. They are still counted as being among the tenses as the irrealis and past irrealis bear similar properties to the other tenses, namely that their suffixes can be fusionally combined with the other moods.

## 6.5 Tense

Each of Classical Paternic's ten tenses serves to convey unique information and some bear unique properties concerning their syntax. Therefore they each will be receiving their own subsection. It should be assumed that each tense features nominative-accusative alignment unless otherwise mentioned.

### 6.5.1 Gnostic

The gnostic tense is morphologically identical to the bare short stem. It is most often used for statements that are or are considered general truths or facts and for events that regularly, usually, or always occur. Most succinctly, the gnostic tense can be said to have either GNOMIC aspect or HABITUAL aspect, depending on the context. It's nearest English equivalent is the present simple tense.

- (6.1) *Ōlos nīmlak esh alder.*  
 sun:NOM:SG sky-GEN:INAN into rise:GNO  
 'The sun rises into the sky.'

- (6.2) *Dūm legin.*  
 3ASG:NOM write:GNO  
 'He/she writes.'  
 or 'He/she writes (habitually).'

### 6.5.2 Preterite

In regular verbs the preterite tense has an ergative-absolutive alignment, wherein intransitive agents and transitive patients are marked by the nominative, and transitive agents are marked by the ergative. The preterite is formed by removing the *-o* suffix of the fifth principal part and applying the *-(e)t* suffix to the remaining stem. However, if the second principal part ends in *-Vt* such that 'V' is not an 'e', then that vowel should be used in place of the '(e)' present in the preterite suffix. Defective verbs retain a nominative-accusative alignment, and they are indicated morphologically with the narrative tense suffix seen in regular verbs.

The preterite is used to denote single, completed events, viewed in their entirety, that occurred in the past. It corresponds fairly closely to the simple past form in English (e.g. 'walked'), although it can also be translated using the English present perfect ('has walked') if the event was recently completed. The preterite is thus similar in meaning to Classical Paternic's perfect tense, but they are not identical. Preterite verbs assert that an identified event is completed and not necessarily salient to or impacting the present moment; whereas the perfect implies that the event discussed is somehow of import now. Compare:

- (6.3) *Balkhā sāsh gernet.*  
 ship-ERG:SG silver:NOM:INAN transport-PRET  
 'The ship transported silver (then).'

- (6.4) *Balakh sāshae gernes.*  
 ship:NOM:SG silver-ACC:INAN transport-PRF  
 'The ship has transported silver.'

### 6.5.3 Narrative

The narrative tense is identical in form to the fifth principal part. It does not exist in defective verbs. Verbs in the narrative are chiefly used for events that happened in the distant past, legends and myths, and in narratives. The past simple tense of English is generally an acceptable translation of the narrative.

- (6.5) *Dol-ūkīs gurmo.*  
two=people-ACC:PL die-NARR  
'Two people died (long ago).'

### 6.5.4 Perfect

Perfect verbs are conjugated by removing the *-o* suffix from the fifth principle part and suffixing the *-es* ending onto the remaining stem. Use of the perfect indicates that the event denoted by the verb precedes some other discourse-salient point in time, typically the present. The present perfect in English is roughly equivalent in meaning. See (6.4) for an example of the perfect tense in a sentence.

### 6.5.5 Pluperfect

The pluperfect is formed by removing the *-o* suffix from the fifth principle part and suffixing the *-in* ending onto the remaining stem. Pluperfect verbs are used to discuss completed events that occurred prior to the perspective of some other point in the past. In general, it can be translated using the past perfect seen in English ('had walked').

- (6.6) *Drakae mūstēlnāra mādabdin.*  
3I:ACC summer-LOC:SG dry.up-PLUP  
'It had dried up in the summer.'

### 6.5.6 Present

The present tense is morphologically identical to the bare long stem. Use of the present denotes that the event is currently happening, and can often be translated into English using the present progressive ('is walking'). It can also be used when the clause expresses a state of affairs which began in the past and has persisted up to the present moment, in which case it would be more apt to use the present perfect or present perfect progressive ('has been walking'). Observe:

- (6.7) *Tar lelōk.*  
2SG:NOM say:PRS  
'You are talking.'
- (6.8) *Tar hanak imbar lelōk*  
2SG:NOM day-GEN:SG through say:PRS  
'You have been talking the whole day.'

### 6.5.7 Imperfect

In regular verbs the imperfect tense has an ergative-absolutive alignment, wherein intransitive agents and transitive patients are marked by the nominative, and transitive agents are marked by the ergative. The imperfect is formed by removing the *-t* ending of the second principal part and applying the *-t* suffix to the remaining stem. Defective verbs retain a nominative-accusative alignment, and they are indicated morphologically with the past habitual tense suffix seen in regular verbs.

The imperfect is used to indicate events that were ongoing in the past, as well as events that occurred generally or regularly at some point in the near past. It is best represented in English by the past progressive ('was walking'), as demonstrated by the following example.

- (6.9) *Inūsh eb pepnit.*  
 2PL:ERG rope:NOM:INAN steal-IMPF  
 ‘You all were stealing rope(s).’

### 6.5.8 Past Habitual

In regular verbs the past habitual is identical to the third principal part. It does not exist in defective verbs. It is used for events that occurred generally or regularly over some period in the past, and can often be translated by the phrase ‘used to’ in English (‘used to walk’). The past habitual also is used in narration for any events that were ongoing in the past.

- (6.10) *Dūm pepunkūs.*  
 3ASG:NOM steal-PHAB  
 ‘He/she used to steal.’

### 6.5.9 Irrealis and Past Irrealis

The irrealis tense is formed by removing the *-Vt* suffix of the second principal part and applying the *-e* suffix in its place. The same process is done for the past irrealis tense, save that it is done using the fifth principal part instead. The irrealis and past irrealis have a number of different uses. They are used to express that an event is or was probable (‘should, should have’ and ‘ought’), when politely expressing desires or requests, and when speculating about events.

- (6.11) *In derke.*  
 2SG:ACC die-IRR  
 ‘You should (are likely to) die.’
- (6.12) *In dake.*  
 2SG:ACC die-PIRR  
 ‘You should have died.’

## 6.6 Mood

There are five moods in Classical Paternic: the indicative, the jussive, the potential, the necessitative, and the old imperative

### 6.6.1 Jussive

All jussive mood suffixes are applied to the short stem of the verb; the long stem goes unused. The jussive is used in order to express commands in the second person and in a hortative sense in the first and third persons (‘let him fight’). Negated jussive verbs in present time are generally placed in the perfect tense. The imperfect, pluperfect, and narrative tenses give a sense of obligation or duty when combined with the jussive (‘you should have fought’).

### 6.6.2 Potential

The potential mood is used when expressing possibility or permission (‘can, could’ and ‘may, might’).

### 6.6.3 Necessitative

The necessitative mood is used when expressing necessity or extreme obligation (‘need’ and ‘must’).

### 6.6.4 Old Imperative

The old imperative is an older form whose use cases have been mostly replaced by the jussive. It is usually considered rude to use, and has a very strong force of command. The old imperative is, however, socially acceptable to employ when the speaker has a very high level of authority over the addressee (such as with parents to their children, or a king to his servant). It is formed simply by placing the verb in the gnomic tense and dropping the subject pronoun.

## 6.7 Applicative Voice

The applicative voice is a grammatical voice that promotes an oblique argument of a verb to the primary object, deleting the original primary object if there was one. In Classical Paternic there are four applicatives: benefactive, malefactive, locative, and circumstantial. All of these voices are applied via prefixes, and they take the slot used by pronominal clitics. Therefore when a verb is in the applicative voice, any pronouns in the accusative case must use their full form, as opposed to the normal clitic form. The following table will showcase the three applicative prefixes.

|                |      |
|----------------|------|
| BENEFACTIVE    | īn-  |
| MALEFACTIVE    | tho- |
| LOCATIVE       | āg-  |
| CIRCUMSTANTIAL | le-  |

### 6.7.1 Benefactive

The benefactive applicative is most commonly used in order to promote the beneficiary, or, in other words, the one who benefits from the verb, to the role of primary object. The benefactive can also promote goals (where the action is directed towards). Context is needed to determine the intended meaning; this is generally not a problem as locations are rarely beneficiaries.

- (6.13) *Nar bāl īngodbephek.*  
1SG:NOM 3ASG:ACC APPL:BEN-rebuild:PRS  
'I am rebuilding (something) for him.'

- (6.14) *Nar nenae īmemāt.*  
1SG:NOM meadow-ACC:INAN APPL:BEN-go:PRS  
'I am going to the meadow.'

Observe that *nenae* 'meadow' in (6.14) is inflected in the accusative rather than the genitive. *Nenae* is now the primary object of the verb, which has been modified to mean something like 'to go towards'.

### 6.7.2 Malefactive

The malefactive applicative can only be used with transitive verbs. It is used to promote maleficiaries, those who would in some way suffer as a consequence of the event expressed by the verb.

- (6.15) *Nar bāl thogodbephek.*  
1SG:NOM 3ASG:ACC APPL:MAL-rebuild:PRS  
'I am rebuilding (something) to his detriment.'

### 6.7.3 Locative

The locative applicative voice promotes locations and obliques expressed in the comitative case. When the primary object of a verb in the locative voice is semantically inanimate, it can generally be assumed that it is a location; whereas when the primary object is semantically animate, it will typically be an accompanier.

### 6.7.4 Circumstantial

The circumstantial applicative voice promotes sources and origins (e.g., ‘*from* the water’), instruments, inanimate comitative obliques, causes, and the objects of adjectives.

## 6.8 Periphrastic Future

Future time can be conveyed by the use of a periphrastic future construction that makes use of the future auxiliary *memāt*, *māt* ‘go, move’. By placing the lexical noun in the masdar form (discussed in the next section) followed by the inflected future auxiliary, a future tense is created. Observe:

(6.16) *Il napil māt*  
3I:ACC burn-MSD go:GNO  
‘It will certainly burn.’

(6.17) *Il napil memāt*  
3I:ACC burn-MSD go:PRS  
‘It will be burning.’ or ‘It is going to burn.’

Notice that in (6.16) the auxiliary is in the gnomic tense. This is called the periphrastic future prophetic. It is a rare construction used primarily for events that are certain to happen. It should be translated as ‘will’ or ‘will certainly’. (6.17) features the much more common future imperfective construction, which places the future auxiliary in the present tense. This can be translating using ‘will’ or ‘going to’.



# Non-Finite Verbs

## 7.1 The Masdar

Masdars are, in essence, verbal nouns, being a sort of mix between gerunds and infinitives. For the purposes with this document, I will discuss the overlap between the masdar and the English infinitive. To form the masdar, one must simply remove the *-Vt* suffix from the fifth principal part of the verb and add the *-il* suffix. The masdar will often serve as the complement to another verb, effectively acting as its primary object:

- (7.1) *Nar ghadil tāgo.*  
 1SG:NOM drink-MSD not\_want:GNO  
 ‘I don’t want to drink.’

The masdar always immediately precedes its head verb, as observed in (7.1). If the masdar were to take its own object, then that object would need to both immediately precede the masdar and be placed in the accusative (non-clitic) case. Compare:

- (7.2) \**Nar il lazha ghil ghadil tāgo.*  
 1SG:NOM 3I:ACC valley-LOC:SG near drink-MSD not\_want:GNO  
 \*‘I don’t want to drink it near the valley.’

- (7.3) *Nar lazha ghil il ghadil tāgo.*  
 1SG:NOM valley-LOC:SG near 3I:ACC drink-MSD not\_want:GNO  
 ‘I don’t want to drink it near the valley.’

## 7.2 Converbs

Most embedded clauses in Classical Paternic are formed with the use of what are called ‘converbs’. Converbs are a form of non-finite verb that is used to express adverbial subordination: notions like ‘when’, ‘because’, ‘after’, and ‘while’. There are seven different converbial forms overall in the language. Firstly I will provide a list of the converb suffixes, which are appended to the sixth principal part in the same way the masdar suffix is appended:

|              |         |
|--------------|---------|
| IMPERFECTIVE | -ith    |
| ANTERIOR     | -ad     |
| POSTERIOR    | -the    |
| CONDITIONAL  | -tu     |
| CONCESSIVE   | -phon   |
| PURPOSIVE    | -umor   |
| AVERTIVE     | -thumor |

### 7.2.1 Imperfective

The imperfective converb expresses that the event in the embedded clause is occurring simultaneously with the main clause. Adverbial clauses beginning with ‘when’ and ‘while’ are good ways to translate this converb into English.

- (7.4) *Tar lōkith phelae sebdo.*  
 2SG:NOM speak-ICVB water-ACC:INAN pour-PRET  
 ‘You, while speaking, poured the water.’

### 7.2.2 Anterior

When the main clause is in the preterite and narrative tenses, the anterior converb is used to express a sequence of successive events. The phrase ‘and then’ is adequate for this usage. If the main clause is not in the narrative or preterite tense, however, the anterior converb usually has a meaning similar to ‘having’, although, depending on context, it can also express that the event described by the main verb occurred as a result or consequence of the embedded clause. In such a case, it would be best translated using words and phrases such as ‘since’, ‘due to’, and ‘because’ or ‘due to’, depending on context.

- (7.5) *Tar phelae sebdad ghado.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN pour-ACVB drink-PRET  
‘You poured the water and then drank (it).’

- (7.6) *Tar phelae sebdad gegadgūs.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN pour-ACVB drink-IMPF  
‘Having poured the water, you drank (it).’  
‘Because you poured the water, you drank (it).’

Note that although *tar* and *phelae* have been translated as the subject and object respectively of ‘pour’ in (7.5), this is merely a concession to get the sentence to make sense in English. In Classical Paternic, the subject and object belong to the main verb *ghado* ‘drank’. *Sebdad* more accurately translates to ‘poured and then’, without any information as to who is doing the pouring or what is being poured.

### 7.2.3 Posterior

When the main clause is in the perfective aspect, the posterior converb expresses that the event in the embedded clause followed the event described by the main verb. Adverbial clauses beginning with ‘before’ are best for translating this usage. However, if the main clause has been negated or is in the imperfective aspect, the converb has a meaning of ‘until’.

- (7.7) *Tar phelae ghadlokh sebdo.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN drink-POST:CVB pour-PRET  
‘Before drinking the water, you poured it.’

- (7.8) *Tar phelae ghadlokh sezbatkūs.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN drink-POST:CVB pour-PHAB  
‘Until you were drinking the water, you poured it.’

The posterior converb is also used to indicate the protasis of a conditional clause in prior time. However, the construction of conditional clauses will be discussed in a later segment.

### 7.2.4 Conditional

Most conditional clauses are begun by a conditional protasis using the conditional converb. The exact nature of conditional clauses will be demonstrated later.

### 7.2.5 Concessive

The concessive converb is used to indicate that the main clause occurred despite the condition mentioned in the converbial clause. This converb has a meaning like ‘although’, ‘despite’, or ‘even though’.

- (7.9) *Tar phelae ū sebdephon ghado.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN NEG pour-CONC:CVB drink-PRET  
‘Despite not pouring the water, you drank it.’

### 7.2.6 Purposive

The use of the purposive converb means that the embedded clause is being done in order to bring about the main clause. English phrases such as ‘in order to’ and ‘so as to’ should be used when translating this converb.

- (7.10) *Tar phelae sebdumor ghado.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN pour-PURP:CVB drink-PRET  
‘You poured the water in order to drink it.’

### 7.2.7 Avertive

When the avertive converb is deployed, it means that the embedded clause has been committed with the intent to avoid or prevent the main clause from occurring. ‘For fear that’ and ‘lest’ are good ways of translating the avertive.

- (7.11) *Tar phelae sebdethumor ū ghado.*  
2SG:NOM water-ACC:INAN pour-AVER:CVB NEG drink-PRET  
‘You poured the water for fear that you would not drink it.’

## 7.3 Participles

The participles will not be discussed in this document. They are not needed for the torch and I do not have the time to write out a summary. If you are curious, there are three: the agent perfective, the perfective, and the imperfective.

# Minor Word Classes

## 8.1 Postpositions

Classical Paternic is a strictly postpositional language. Postpositions are a closed class, meaning new adpositions are virtually never introduced into the grammar. Some postpositions can take multiple cases. In those cases, the usage of a different case changes the meaning of the postposition. Below I will provide a list of Classical Paternic postpositions.

| POSTPOSITION | CASE | MEANING                      |
|--------------|------|------------------------------|
| <i>nūs</i>   | GEN  | towards, against             |
| <i>iur</i>   | LOC  | in, inside of                |
| <i>esh</i>   | GEN  | into, onto                   |
| <i>tel</i>   | ERG  | from, away from              |
| <i>go</i>    | ERG  | (go) out of, (go) away from  |
| <i>phe</i>   | LOC  | above, over                  |
|              | GEN  | (go) above, (go) over        |
| <i>hoth</i>  | LOC  | below, under                 |
|              | GEN  | (go) below, (go) under       |
| <i>ob</i>    | LOC  | in front of, ahead           |
| <i>nad</i>   | LOC  | behind                       |
| <i>ghīl</i>  | LOC  | near, by                     |
| <i>korum</i> | LOC  | around                       |
|              | GEN  | (go) around                  |
| <i>ephil</i> | ERG  | far from, (go) far from      |
| <i>prae</i>  | LOC  | next to, beside              |
|              | GEN  | (go) next to                 |
| <i>ged</i>   | LOC  | before, earlier              |
| <i>sūl</i>   | ERG  | after, later                 |
| <i>(n)ē</i>  | LOC  | between, in the middle of    |
| <i>dobor</i> | LOC  | within, among                |
| <i>henar</i> | LOC  | on this side of              |
| <i>lat</i>   | LOC  | beyond, on the other side of |
| <i>han</i>   | GEN  | (go) across                  |
| <i>imbar</i> | GEN  | through, during              |

## 8.2 Coordination

Noun phrases and clauses can be linked using a coordinator, which can either precede or follow the second conjunct depending on the coordinator. Classical Paternic has the following coordinators:

|             |                                  |
|-------------|----------------------------------|
| <i>īm</i>   | ‘and’                            |
| <i>sot</i>  | ‘and (adjectival)’               |
| <i>anar</i> | ‘and also, as well as, and even’ |
| <i>kho</i>  | ‘but, yet’                       |
| <i>ne</i>   | ‘or’                             |

### 8.2.1 Postpositive Coordinators

The coordinators *īm*, *sot*, and *anar* are postpositive, meaning they appear after the second conjunct. In a list of three or more items where none of the coordinators are deleted however, only the last coordinator follows the conjunct. This rule only affects *īm* when it is coordinating nouns, however. It is not postpositive when coordination clauses.

- (8.1) *undo*                      *thundo*                      *īm*  
stone:NOM:INAN pebble:NOM:INAN and  
‘stones and pebbles’

- (8.2) *undo*                      *īm* *thundo*                      *mekāsh*                      *īm*  
stone:NOM:INAN and pebble:NOM:INAN cliff:NOM:INAN and  
‘stones and pebbles and cliffs’

### 8.3 Negative Particle

All words in Classical Paternic are negated by the particle  $\bar{u}(m)$ . The negative particle will always immediately precede the item being negated. If the initial phoneme of the word is a consonant, then the negative particle will be realized as  $\bar{u}$ . If the initial phone is a vowel, on the other hand, then the negative particle will be realized as  $\bar{u}m$ .

### 8.4 Vocative Particle

There is no vocative case in Classical Paternic. If a speaker wishes to give a noun a vocative force, then they can either use a bare nominative noun, or they can place that noun in the nominative case and precede it with the vocative particle *ia* like so:

- (8.3) *ia*    *māgor*  
VOC king:NOM:SG  
‘O king’

Note that the vocative particle was translated here as ‘O’. This is not necessary to generate a good translation, but it can be deployed in order to emphasize the vocative nature of the phrase in English.

# Clause Structure and Syntax

## 9.1 Constituent Order

Classical Patrīnaic is predominantly head-final in its noun phrases. Possessors and adjectives usually precede their head noun, as can be seen by comparing the phrase *khar* ‘house’ with the phrases *ūkok khar* ‘the person’s house’ and *ūkok rhus khar* ‘the person’s red house’. Demonstratives and quantifiers also typically precede the noun they modify.

It should be noted, however, that the constituent orders described above are not absolute, and can be modified with little issue. On occasion, for emphasis or poetic license, possessors and adjectives follow the modified noun. This is a technique also regularly employed in place names. In addition, placing a demonstrative or quantifier after its head noun can be used as a form of emphasizing salience or definiteness.

At the clausal level, constituent order is fairly free, though there is a clear preference for verb-final (SOV) order. Typically, clauses are made of a verb preceded by one or more case-marked pronouns or noun phrases. The ordering of these noun phrases is determined primarily by the discourse prominence of each constituent, which is demonstrated by the sentences below. In this way, Classical Patrīnaic operates as a scrambling language akin to Latin or Ancient Greek.

## 9.2 Complementizers

Although Classical Patrīnaic is largely head-final with a default SOV order, there are a number of embedded clause types which act head-initially rather than head-finally as one would expect. A general rule of thumb is that embedded clauses with finite verb forms are head-initial while embedded clauses with non-finite verb forms are head-final. Typically, verbs of knowledge, propositional attitude, and utterance take finite complements and verbs of perception, desideratives, and phasals take non-finite complements. A series of example sentences demonstrating these two types of embedded clauses has been provided below.

- (9.1) *Nar lōko shās: “dūm ghado.”*  
1SG:NOM say-PRET QUOT 3ASG:NOM drink-PRET.  
‘I said “he/she drank”.’
- (9.2) *Nar peno shās dūm ghado.*  
1SG:NOM think-PRET QUOT 3ASG:NOM drink-PRET.  
‘I thought that he/she drank.’
- (9.3) *Nar pasho shās dūm ghado.*  
1SG:NOM know-PRET QUOT 3ASG:NOM drink-PRET.  
‘I knew that he/she drank.’
- (9.4) *Dūm ghado men nar lōko.*  
3ASG:NOM drink-PRET COMP 1SG:NOM say-PRET.  
‘I said that he/she drank.’
- (9.5) *Nar ghadil men pāgo.*  
1SG:NOM drink-MSD COMP want-PRET.  
‘I wanted to drink.’
- (9.6) *The ghadil men būzo.*  
1SG:ERG drink-MSD COMP stop-PRET.  
‘I stopped drinking.’

Recognize that different complementizers are used depending on if the embedded clause is finite or non-finite. The complementizer *shās*, called the quotative (QUOT), is specifically used to introduce

direct speech while the complementizer *men* is used to introduce indirect speech. Indirect speech is the only instance in which *men* displays head-initial syntax. Additionally, the constructions in (9.5) and (9.6) do not require the use of *men*, but it has been included regardless to demonstrate its head-final syntax.

### 9.3 Special Clause Types

#### 9.3.1 Copular Sentences

Classical Paternic is generally a zero-copula language. Furthermore, predicative adjectives and nouns can take the narrative, past habitual, perfect, pluperfect, and irrealis tense endings to convey meanings other than the default gnomic indicative interpretation, with the narrative tense ending providing a preterite meaning. Observe:

(9.7) *Dūm akhon.*  
 3ASG:NOM child:NOM:SG  
 ‘He/she is a child.’

(9.8) *Dūm akhono.*  
 3ASG:NOM child-PRET  
 ‘He/she was a child.’

(9.9) *Dūm akhono.*  
 3ASG:NOM child-GNO:NEC  
 ‘He/she needs to be a child.’

A copula is required for the inflection of non-finite forms, however. This is evidenced by the fact that (9.10) is ungrammatical, as opposed to the perfectly acceptable (9.11).

(9.10) *\*Dūm akhonil āth.*  
 3ASG:NOM child-MSD about\_to\_be:PRS  
 \*‘He/she is about to be a child.’

(9.11) *Dūm akhon eril āth.*  
 3ASG:NOM child:NOM:SG be-MSD about\_to\_be:PRS  
 ‘He/she is about to be a child.’

#### 9.3.2 Direct Speech

To express a direct quotation, the construction illustrated in (9.1) is used. There the direct quotation, which takes the form of a new main clause, is introduced by the quotative.

### 9.4 Conditional Clauses

Classical Paternic has a robust series of conditional clause types, all of which are formed by a conditional, concessive, posterior, or similitive converb in the protasis followed by a finite verb in the apodosis. Conditional clauses begun by concessive and similitive converb will not here be discussed, nor will counterfactual conditionals. After these restrictions, there are five remaining conditional clause types: present indicative, past indicative, future indicative, past-to-present indicative, and past-to-future indicative.

#### 9.4.1 General Structure

I will begin by describing the general structure of the indicative conditional clause. Conditional clauses establish a condition, or if-clause, in the protasis, and a subsequent consequence if the condition is fulfilled in the apodosis. The if-clause will always contain a converb and the apodosis will always contain a finite verb.

#### 9.4.2 Present Indicative

The present indicative is formed by a conditional converb in the protasis and a present or perfect tense verb in the apodosis. It may be translated thusly: ‘if I do... I am’.

- (9.12) *Nar naktu nar gegrem.*  
1SG:NOM fight-CVB:COND 1SG:NOM die:PRS  
‘If I am fighting then I am dying.’

#### 9.4.3 Past Indicative

The past indicative is formed by a conditional converb in the protasis and a imperfect or preterite tense verb in the apodosis. It may be translated thusly: ‘if I did... I was’.

- (9.13) *Nar naktu nar gurmo.*  
1SG:NOM fight-CVB:COND 1SG:NOM die:PRET  
‘If I fought then I died.’

#### 9.4.4 Future Indicative

The future indicative is formed by a conditional converb in the protasis and a future periphrastic construction in the apodosis. It may be translated thusly: ‘if I do... I will’.

- (9.14) *Nar naktu nar gurmil memāt.*  
1SG:NOM fight-CVB:COND 1SG:NOM die-MSD go:PRS  
‘If I fight then I will die.’

#### 9.4.5 Past-to-Present Indicative

The past-to-present indicative is formed by a posterior converb in the protasis and a present or perfect tense verb in the apodosis. It may be translated thusly: ‘if I did... I am’.

- (9.15) *Nar naklokh nar gegrem.*  
1SG:NOM fight-CVB:POST 1SG:NOM die:PRS  
‘If I fought then I am dying.’

#### 9.4.6 Past-to-Future Indicative

The past-to-future indicative is formed by a posterior converb in the protasis and a future periphrastic construction in the apodosis. It may be translated thusly: ‘if I did... I will’.

- (9.16) *Nar naklokh nar gurmil mātō.*  
1SG:NOM fight-CVB:POST 1SG:NOM die-MSD go:PRET  
‘If I fought then I will die.’